

Particle Physics Beyond the Standard Model

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Resources Every particle physicist needs a reference to remember all the masses, lifetimes, and properties of the zoo of particles we know. Fortunately, there are some great resources online with all the information you need (for free!). The most standard reference is the Particle Data Group (PDG), which compiles all the relevant particle physics results to date in an easy-to- way. You can also order your own booklet if you'd like a physical copy.

- <https://pdglive.lbl.gov/>
- The PDG also has several review pages on particle physics and cosmology: https://pdg.lbl.gov/2023/reviews/contents_sports.html — these are more advanced though.

Other useful websites you should know about for literature review:

1. INSPIRE-HEP: <https://inspirehep.net/>
2. arXiv: <https://arxiv.org>

1 Reminders and Natural Units

Particle physicists like to express physical quantities in units that are *not* defined by human standards, like meters, seconds, or grams. Instead, we define new “natural units” that: 1) are based on universal and fundamental laws of nature and 2) that make our equations as simple as possible. This approach treats dimensionful constants (are they even constant if they depend on your choice of units?) as conversion factors between different physical quantities.

As you learned in your Special Relativity course, the speed of light in vacuum,

$$c = 299\,792\,458 \text{ m/s} \simeq 1 \text{ foot/ns}, \quad (1.1)$$

is a constant for all observers; therefore, it is as universal a quantity as we could hope for. In natural units, we enforce c to be unity, such that

$$c \stackrel{!}{=} 1 \implies 1 \text{ s} = 299\,792\,458 \text{ m}. \quad (1.2)$$

That is, by setting $c = 1$, we have simply stated that meters and seconds are equivalent measures of something (call it a space-time distance, for instance), and that it takes a lot of meters to have a comparable “space-time” second. By imposing Eq. (1.2), we have effectively reduced the number of fundamental units we need to keep track of by one: you may now use only meters or only seconds to fully specify a physical quantity.



As a consequence, speed or velocity are dimensionless quantities since their magnitudes are always interpreted as a fraction of the speed of light, which is just unity ($c = 1$).

The relativistic energy for a particle with mass m and momentum p is

$$E^2 = m^2 c^4 + p^2 c^2. \quad (1.3)$$

In natural units,

$$E^2 = m^2 + p^2. \quad (1.4)$$

The equivalence between mass, momentum, and energy becomes much clearer in this way: E , m , and p can all be expressed in terms of energy units.

Another universal constant we can leverage to simplify our units is Planck’s constant h (in particular, its reduced form will make less of a mess):

$$\hbar = \frac{h}{2\pi} = 1.054571817 \times 10^{-34} \text{ J.s} = 6.582119569 \times 10^{-16} \text{ eV/Hz}, \quad (1.5)$$

where we used the definition of an electronvolt in the second equality (1 eV = 1.602176634 × 10⁻¹⁹ J is the energy acquired by an electron in an electric potential of one volt. Hence, electronvolt is a unit of energy.) By setting

$$\hbar \stackrel{!}{=} 1 \implies 1 \text{ Hz} = \text{s}^{-1} = 6.582119569 \times 10^{-16} \text{ eV}. \quad (1.6)$$

we make it clear that $\hbar$ relates energy to frequency (or inverse time) in a very fundamental way. This follows the physics since the energy of a photon is given by

$$E = h\nu = \hbar\omega = \frac{2\pi\hbar}{T} = \frac{2\pi\hbar c}{\lambda}, \quad (1.7)$$

where ν is the frequency of the photon, $\omega = 2\pi\nu$ is its angular frequency, T is its period, and λ is its wavelength. In fact, from all equalities above, you can deduce that $\hbar = 1$ and $c = 1$ put energy, frequency, time, and distance all on the same footing.

We started with three units: energy (eV), time (s), and distance (m). By setting $\hbar = 1$ and $c = 1$, we imposed two independent constraints on the system, leaving just one independent fundamental unit. We will pick it to be energy.



By convention, when working with natural units, we typically express all quantities in electronvolt (eV) or powers thereof. When necessary, we convert back to meters, seconds, or whatever else, by making use of the definition of $\hbar$ in Eq. (1.5), c in Eq. (1.2), or other convenient factors such as:

$$\hbar c \simeq 197 \text{ MeV}\cdot\text{fm} = 0.197 \text{ GeV}\cdot\text{fm} = 1.97 \times 10^{-5} \text{ eV}\cdot\text{cm}. \quad (1.8)$$



The reduced Compton wavelength of a massive particle is

$$\lambda = \frac{\hbar}{m_e c}. \quad (1.9)$$

What is λ for electrons, $m_e = 0.511 \text{ MeV}$? How about for a proton, $m_p = 938 \text{ MeV}$? Express your answers in femtometers ($1 \text{ fm} = 10^{-15} \text{ m}$).



The mass of a proton is approximately $m_p \simeq 938 \text{ MeV}$. Using natural units, find the mass of a proton at rest in grams. How many protons in a gram?



The Hubble constant is $H_0 \simeq 75 \text{ (km/s)/Mpc}$. What distance does H_0^{-1} correspond to in Mpc? This is approximately the size of our causal horizon. What is H_0 in eV?

The above is the bulk of what we will need for our calculations, but there are two more examples that are worth mentioning. In Maxwell's equations, we also have the permittivity of free space ϵ_0 :

$$\epsilon_0 = 8.8541878128 \times 10^{-10} \text{ C}^2/(\text{N} \cdot \text{m}^2) \simeq 1.418 \times 10^{-32} \text{ C}^2/(\text{eV} \cdot \text{cm}). \quad (1.10)$$

This too, we will set to unity, $\epsilon_0 = 1$. In this case, the new constraint relates, for example, Coulombs (C), electronvolts (eV), and centimeters (cm). From $c = \hbar = 1$ and Eq. (1.8), we already know that centimeters and electronvolts are inversely related such that their product comes out dimensionless. Therefore, Setting $\epsilon_0 = 1$ has trivialized Coulombs as a unit and has set it to a dimensionless value of $C \simeq 5.28 \times 10^{-19}$.



In natural units, electric charge, usually expressed in terms of the elementary charge $e = 1.602176634 \times 10^{-19} \text{ C}$, is dimensionless. From Eq. (1.10), you can show that

$$e \simeq 0.303 \implies \alpha = \frac{e^2}{4\pi} \simeq \frac{1}{137}. \quad (1.11)$$

Now, that's a constant! (Or is it?)

Let us connect this permittivity discussion to a familiar problem. Consider the energy ΔE gained by an electron of elementary charge $q_1 = e$ in an electric potential V sourced by a point charge $q_2 = Qe$ at distance r away. In natural units, it is simply given by

$$\Delta E = q_1 \cdot V = \frac{q_1 q_2}{4\pi r} = \frac{\alpha Q}{r}. \quad (1.12)$$

This should feel more natural, the energy gained depends purely on the distance proportionally to dimensionless quantities: the charges and the fine-structure constant $\alpha \simeq \frac{1}{137}$. The latter appears here to characterize the strength of the electromagnetic interaction.

A final example is Boltzmann's constant k_B :

$$k_B = 1.380649 \times 10^{-23} \text{ J/K} = 8.617333262 \times 10^{-5} \text{ eV/K}. \quad (1.13)$$

Recall that the typical kinetic energy of a particle in an ideal gas of temperature T is $E \sim 3k_B T/2$. By setting $k_B = 1$, we find that the temperature is simply a measure of energy.



What is the typical energy of a photon in the Cosmic Microwave Background given that its temperature is $T \simeq 2.7$ K? Express your answer in eV. How does this compare to the typical energy of a photon in visible light, which has a wavelength of about 500 nm? And to the ground state energy of the hydrogen atom?



The typical energy of a photon in the Cosmic Microwave Background (CMB) can be estimated using the relation $E \sim k_B T$. Given that $T \simeq 2.7$ K, we find

$$E \sim k_B T \simeq 8.617333262 \times 10^{-5} \text{ eV/K} \times 2.7 \text{ K} \simeq 2.33 \times 10^{-4} \text{ eV}. \quad (1.14)$$

In comparison, the energy of a photon in visible light with a wavelength of about 500 nm is given by

$$E \sim \frac{hc}{\lambda} \simeq \frac{(4.135667696 \times 10^{-15} \text{ eV s})(3 \times 10^{10} \text{ cm/s})}{500 \times 10^{-7} \text{ cm}} \simeq 2.48 \text{ eV}. \quad (1.15)$$

Finally, the ground state energy of the hydrogen atom is approximately $E_1 \simeq -13.6$ eV.

Energy regimes. In particle physics, we often classify particles as non-relativistic or ultra-relativistic depending on the relative size of their mass m and momentum p .

In the non-relativistic regime, $m \gg p$ and

$$E = \sqrt{m^2 + p^2} = m \sqrt{1 + \frac{p^2}{m^2}} \simeq m + \frac{p^2}{2m} + \dots \quad (1.16)$$

As expected, the leading contribution to this particle's energy is its mass. The term $p^2/2m$ is then just the classical expression for its kinetic energy.

In the ultra-relativistic regime, $m \ll p$ and

$$E = p\sqrt{1 + \frac{m^2}{p^2}} \simeq p + \frac{m^2}{2p} + \dots \quad (1.17)$$

The energy is dominated by the momentum piece with a correction of size $m^2/2p$. The latter may be less familiar, but it will show up quite often in the world of particle physics, especially in neutrino.

Moving Waves. The plane wave wavefunction is given by

$$\psi(t, \vec{x}) \propto e^{-i(\omega t - \vec{k} \cdot \vec{x})}. \quad (1.18)$$

This wave has a well defined momentum $\vec{p} = \hbar \vec{k}$, but it is not localized in space. It is not normalizable and cannot be interpreted as a physical particle. Despite that, it can still be useful when describing certain phenomena that do not depend on position or when dealing with asymptotic states, which is often the case in high-energy collisions. We usually care about the incoming and outgoing states in the (practically) infinite past and future. Particle physicists rarely have to resort to a more sophisticated description, but it will come up in our discussion of neutrino oscillations, so we review it below.

One such description is a wave packet built from a superposition of plane waves of different momenta. A one-dimensional gaussian wavepacket, for instance, could start out looking like

$$\psi(t=0, x) = g(x, x_0, \sigma_x) e^{ik_0 x}, \quad (1.19)$$

with k_0 some characteristic momentum (but not the only momentum of this wave) and

$$g(x, \mu, \sigma) = \frac{1}{(2\pi)^{\frac{1}{4}} \sqrt{\sigma}} e^{-\frac{(x-\mu)^2}{4\sigma^2}}. \quad (1.20)$$

You can convince yourself that this wavefunction is normalizable, $\int dx |\psi(x)|^2 = 1$. Fourier transforming this wavefunction, we get all momentum modes

$$\tilde{\psi}(t=0, k) = g(k, k_0, \sigma_x^{-1}) e^{ix_0(k-k_0)}. \quad (1.21)$$

As expected, this is also a gaussian, now with a width such that $\sigma_k = \frac{1}{2}\sigma_x^{-1}$. Following the uncertainty principle, the more localized this wave packet is in position space (smaller σ_x), the more spread out it is in momentum space (larger σ_k).

The time dependence is then determined by

$$\psi(t, x) = \int \frac{dk}{2\pi} \tilde{\psi}(t, k) e^{-i(\omega(k)t - kx)}. \quad (1.22)$$

Since the wavefunction $\tilde{\psi}(t, k)$ is peaked around k_0 , we can Taylor expand it as

$$\omega(k) \simeq \omega_0 + (k - k_0)v_g + \cdots, \quad (1.23)$$

where $\omega_0 \equiv \omega(k_0)$ and we defined the group velocity

$$v_g \equiv \left. \frac{\partial \omega}{\partial k} \right|_{k_0}. \quad (1.24)$$

Plugging this back in the integral, we find

$$\psi(t, x) \simeq e^{-i(\omega_0 t - k_0 x)} \int \frac{dk}{2\pi} \tilde{\psi}(t, k_0) e^{-i(k - k_0)(v_g t - x)}. \quad (1.25)$$

The prefactor is just a plane wave with momentum k_0 and energy ω_0 . More importantly, this plane wave is now modulated by the integral over momentum modes. The latter is just a function of x and describes the spread of the wave packet in position space.



Actually perform the integral in Eq. (1.25) keeping terms of order $(k - k_0)^2$ in the expansion of $\omega(k)$,

$$\omega(k) \simeq \omega_0 + v_g(k - k_0) + \frac{1}{2} \omega_0''(k - k_0)^2.$$

(Gaussian integrals will be very useful in QFT classes.) Stare at it long enough to convince yourself that the wave packet moves with group velocity v_g and spreads over time if $\omega_0'' \neq 0$. That is, if the dispersion relation is not constant or linear in k , as is the case for our relativistic particles, then the wave packet will change over time.

Group velocity. Specifying the energy-momentum relation $E(p)$ for a particle is equivalent to specifying its dispersion relation $\omega(k)$. As evident from the above, the phase velocity and the group velocity of a wave are not necessarily the same. In particle physics we are usually more interested in the group velocity, which is the velocity associated with the wavepacket, where the particle is most likely to be found. While the phase velocity is simply $v_p = \frac{\omega}{k}$, the group velocity is

$$v_g \equiv \frac{\partial \omega}{\partial k} = \frac{\partial E}{\partial p} = \frac{p}{E}. \quad (1.26)$$

While v_p can exceed the speed of light, the group velocity cannot, $v_g \leq 1$.



Some special cases of the group velocity are:

- Massless: $E = p \Rightarrow v_g = 1$.
- Particle at rest: $p = 0 \Rightarrow v_g = 0$.
- Non-relativistic: $v_g = \frac{p}{E} \simeq \frac{p}{m} \left(1 - \frac{p^2}{2m^2} \right)$.
- Ultra-relativistic: $v_g = \frac{p}{E} \simeq 1 - \frac{m^2}{2p^2}$.

Racing particles. Consider two particles with common momentum p but different masses m_1 and m_2 , moving with group velocities v_1 and v_2 . The difference in group velocities is given by $\Delta v \equiv v_1 - v_2$ and the lag between their positions is given by $\Delta x \equiv \Delta v t$. In the non-relativistic regime,

$$\Delta v \equiv v_1 - v_2 \simeq \frac{p}{m_1} - \frac{p}{m_2} = p \frac{m_2 - m_1}{m_1 m_2}. \quad (1.27)$$



The ultra-relativistic regime will be very useful later. It is given by

$$\Delta v \equiv v_1 - v_2 \simeq -\frac{m_1^2 - m_2^2}{2p^2} = \frac{m_2^2 - m_1^2}{2p^2}. \quad (1.28)$$

Defining $\Delta m_{21}^2 = m_2^2 - m_1^2$, the lag experience by particle 2 ($m_2 > m_1$) is given by

$$\Delta x \equiv \Delta v t \simeq \frac{\Delta m_{21}^2}{2p^2} t. \quad (1.29)$$

Only differences in m^2 matter at leading order for highly relativistic particles with the same p .

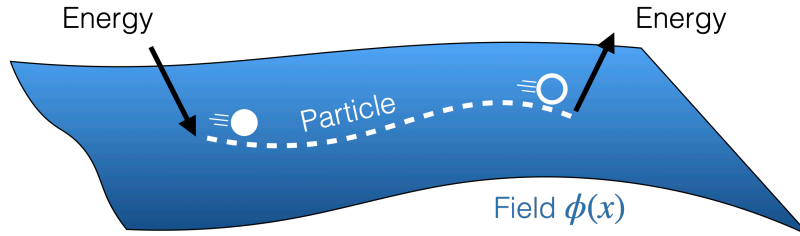


Assume instead that the two racing particles have the same energy, not momentum. What can we say about the difference between their group velocities and the resulting lag? How does this compare with the expression above?

2 The Standard Model: a crash course

Before I can tell you about beyond-the-Standard Model physics, we need to define what the Standard Model (SM) actually is. To do the SM justice would require much more machinery than what most undergraduates or first-year graduate students are equipped with. However, with enough quantum mechanics and special relativity, one can get quite far, and that is precisely why these lectures exist. That being said, I have to emphasize that the SM is a quantum field theory (QFT): it describes phenomena that are both relativistic and quantum-mechanical in nature. To fully appreciate the SM in all its glory, one would need to understand some advanced concepts such as field theory, second quantization, gauge symmetries, renormalization, some cosmology, and group theory. What we are covering in these notes is then just a taste that will hopefully inspire you to take more advanced courses in these areas.

A key aspect of QFT is that particles can be created or annihilated in and out of existence: this fact is an unavoidable consequence of the principle of relativity when applied to the realm of quantum mechanics. The equivalence of mass and energy ($E = mc^2$, now more generally expressed as $E^2 = p^2c^2 + m^2c^4$) is embedded in the very formalism in QFT through the process of “second quantization”. This is fundamentally different from what you may be used to in non-relativistic quantum mechanics or in special relativity classes because in those cases, the number of particles in a given system was always pre-defined and remained constant. In QFT, this is not the case; the number of particles can fluctuate and that has profound implications for how we understand particle interactions and even what the vacuum looks like (spoiler alert: it is not so empty after all).



Quantum Fields. The fundamental building blocks of a QFT are *quantum fields*. These are mathematical objects that permeate all of spacetime and can be thought of as blueprints for particle creation and annihilation. Each type of particle is associated with a specific quantum field, and the excitations of these fields correspond to the particles we observe. For example, the field $\psi(x)$ might be responsible for creating and destroying quantum states of the particle ψ , namely $|\psi\rangle$. If sufficient energy is injected into a field, it may excite a particle, and a particle may be annihilated back into the field to release energy (see above). The ways in which fields interact with each other are governed by the symmetries of the theory, and whatever interactions are allowed by these symmetries will allow excitations in one field to create or annihilate excitations in another field. In a similar way, multiple fields may participate in the creation of a single particle. Such a particle is then just a quantum superposition of excitations in different fields. This may sound like an exotic possibility,

but these superpositions are ubiquitous in the SM and will be crucial to understand the physics of massive particles.

Fields can also be found in configurations that are not associated with single particle states, such as in solitons or instantons solutions. Solitons are localized objects that carry energy and are often stabilized by the topology of the field configuration or by some conserved charge, while instantons represent tunneling processes between the possible vacua in the theory. We will not discuss these further here, but they are important aspects of QFT that explain phenomena such as vacuum tunneling, topological defects (domain walls, strings, vortices, etc), and contribute to our understanding of non-perturbative phenomena in gauge theories.



An important property of quantum fields is that the same field that creates/annihilates particles *can also create/annihilate antiparticles*. We will see exactly what types of particle and antiparticles below, but for now, it suffices to say that every particle has a corresponding antiparticle of opposite quantum numbers.

Building the Standard Model. In its most basic essence, the SM is the combination of three things:

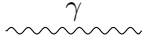
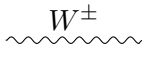
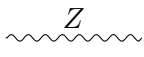
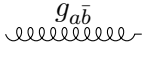
1. a list of symmetries that determine the force carriers¹ (the spin-1 bosons: photons, W and Z bosons, and gluons),
2. a list of matter field content with their respective quantum numbers (it turns out, these are all spin- $\frac{1}{2}$ fermions, namely the quarks and leptons), and
3. a recipe for how these symmetries are broken (the spin-0 Higgs field and its potential).

This three-step process is really how most theories in high-energy physics are constructed, an art that goes by the name of *model-building*. The Higgs boson will be quite an important player in this game. Despite being the simplest mathematical ingredient in the theory (it is just a complex-valued field, as opposed to a field that evaluates to a vector or a spinor), it comes in to mess with the symmetry structure of the theory in a non-trivial way. We will not cover this mechanism in detail, but you should at least have heard that it is important.

Mediators. Each force in the SM has its own set of mediator particles (see below). In the case of electromagnetism, we have the one and only photon (γ). For the strong force, there are 8 gluons ($g_1, g_2, \dots, g_8$), while for the weak force we have the W^+ , W^- , and Z^0 (or just Z) bosons. As we will see, the photon is quite the exception: not only is it the single mediator of the electromagnetic force, but it is also the only force carrier in the SM that can mediate long-range interactions (i.e., the Coulomb force) and the only force carrier in the SM that does not interact with itself.

Each mediator is said to “couple” to a specific property of the matter particles. In the case of EM, this is just the good old electric charge. For the electron, for instance,

¹That a symmetry should imply the existence of a particle is not at all obvious but it is true nonetheless for the *local gauge symmetries* of the SM.

Boson	Feynman diagram	Mass	Name
Photon (γ)		$m_\gamma = 0$	Electromagnetic
$W^\pm$ boson		$m_{W^\pm} \approx 80 \text{ GeV}$	Weak (charged currents)
Z boson		$m_Z \approx 91 \text{ GeV}$	Weak (neutral currents)
Gluon (g)		$m_g = 0$ (Confined)	Strong force ($a, b \in \{R, B, G\}$)

$Q_{em} = -1$. For the strong force, this is the more abstract color charge, schematically represented by red (R), blue (B), and green (G), and their anti-color counterparts, anti-red ($\bar{R}$), anti-blue ($\bar{B}$), and anti-green ($\bar{G}$). For the weak force, it is weak isospin T_3 and weak hypercharge Y_W . How strongly a mediator couples to a given charged particle depends not only on the charge but also on the *coupling constant*, which is the same for interactions that proceed through that particular force. For electromagnetic interactions this is just the constant $e = 0.303$ (or equivalently $\alpha_{em} = e^2/4\pi \approx 1/137$). Despite its name, the weak force also has quite a large coupling constant, $g_{weak} \simeq 0.65$. As we will see, the reason for calling the weak force has more to do with the masses of its mediators than with the strength of its interactions. For the strong force, the coupling constant is denoted by g_s . Its precise value will change by a lot depending on the energy involved in the process, but for most applications at low energies, $g_s > 1$.

The SM is elegant because all fundamental interactions are understood through the same mathematical framework of symmetries and, once all quantum numbers of the matter fields are specified (such as electric charge, color charge, spin, etc), all fundamental interactions can be uniquely determined. Not all forces are manifestations of the same symmetry, however, but they all follow the same underlying principles.



The electromagnetic and weak forces are different manifestations of the same electroweak force. That means that γ , Z , and $W^\pm$ are all mediators of the electroweak force. At low energies, however, where classical electromagnetism is sufficient to explain our world, this unification is all but hidden by the fact that the photon is the only force carrier of the electroweak interaction that is massless. In fact, since the mass of the Z and W bosons are different, we are often required to treat EM, charged-current, and neutral-current weak interactions separately.

This kind of “unification” is not realized between the strong force and the electroweak force, at least not at energy scales we are able to probe with current experiments. Ideas of

grand unified theories (GUTs) that aim to unify all three forces have generated great excitement in the past, but the most minimal models have been mostly excluded by experimental data.

Matter content. The matter fields of the SM consist of multiple generations of fermions. Those that carry color charge are called quarks, while those that do not are called leptons. They come in two types: “left-handed” (LH) and “right-handed” (RH). Only the left-handed particles participate in charged-current weak interactions, while right-handed particles do not.



The property that distinguishes these two types of particles is called *chirality*: LH particles have *negative* chirality, while RH particles have *positive* chirality. One can define the action of the chirality operator $\hat{\mathcal{C}}$ on *chiral states* as follows:

$$\hat{\mathcal{C}}|\psi_L\rangle = -|\psi_L\rangle, \quad \hat{\mathcal{C}}|\psi_R\rangle = +|\psi_R\rangle. \quad (2.1)$$

In this sense, chirality is as much a property of the particle as its charge, spin, or any other quantum number.² The reason you may not have heard of this before is because chirality is often irrelevant for electromagnetism and gravity. This is because the interactions mediated by the photon and the graviton do not distinguish between left-handed and right-handed particles. This, however, is not the case for the weak interactions, where the distinction absolutely matters. Therefore, while in EM you can get away with working with the superposition

$$|e\rangle = \frac{|e_L\rangle + |e_R\rangle}{\sqrt{2}}, \quad (2.2)$$

in weak interactions, one must be more diligent and keep track of each chiral state.

One may also define projection operators,

$$\hat{P}_L = \frac{1}{2}(1 - \hat{\mathcal{C}}), \quad \hat{P}_R = \frac{1}{2}(1 + \hat{\mathcal{C}}), \quad (2.3)$$

such that

$$\hat{P}_L|\psi_L\rangle = |\psi_L\rangle, \quad \hat{P}_L|\psi_R\rangle = 0, \quad \hat{P}_R|\psi_L\rangle = 0, \quad \hat{P}_R|\psi_R\rangle = |\psi_R\rangle, \quad (2.4)$$

and

$$\hat{P}_L + \hat{P}_R = 1, \quad \hat{P}_L\hat{P}_R = 0, \quad \hat{P}_L^2 = \hat{P}_L, \quad \hat{P}_R^2 = \hat{P}_R. \quad (2.5)$$

Particles of different chirality can interact with each other. But most importantly, particles of opposite chirality can mix into what we call a Dirac fermion (this is essentially what Eq. (2.2) is describing). This is the first example of a superposition of field excitations

²In reality, chirality may be seen as even more fundamental as it is defined by the mathematical representation of the fermion under the spacetime symmetries (namely the Poincare group: translation, rotation, and boost invariance). Weyl fermions have definite chirality and come only in two types: left-handed and right-handed. Dirac fermions, such as the electron, are a combination of both.

we alluded to earlier and it is the key mechanism by which all charged fermions in the SM, such as the electron, muon, tau, and all quarks acquire mass.

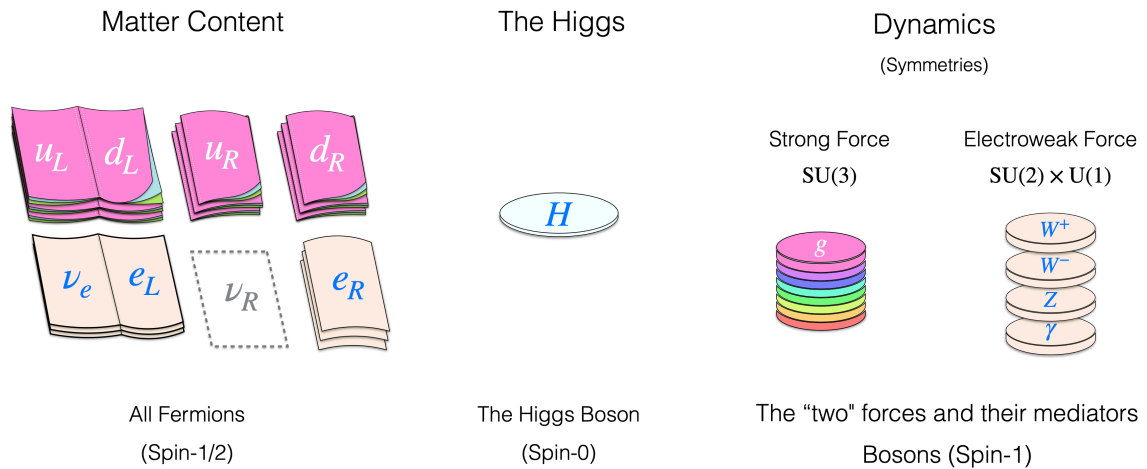
Now that we have established that particles of different chiralities are, in principle, completely different things, I can now show you the full *matter content* of the SM:

Type	Left-handed Fermions	Right-handed (RH) Fermions
Leptons	$\begin{pmatrix} \nu_L^e \\ e_L \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} \nu_L^\mu \\ \mu_L \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} \nu_L^\tau \\ \tau_L \end{pmatrix}$	e_R, μ_R, τ_R
Quarks	$\begin{pmatrix} u_L^i \\ d_L^i \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} c_L^i \\ s_L^i \end{pmatrix}, \begin{pmatrix} t_L^i \\ b_L^i \end{pmatrix}$	$u_R^i, d_R^i, c_R^i, s_R^i, t_R^i, b_R^i$

Here, $i = R, G, B$ runs over the three color charges for quarks. Each generation consists of one pair of LH leptons and one pair of LH quarks (per color), plus one RH charged lepton and two RH quarks (per color). Counting the number of matter fields gives: 3 generations $\times$ (2 LH leptons + 2 LH quarks + 1 RH lepton + 2 RH quarks) = 3 generations $\times$ 7 fields = 21 matter fields.

Why not 24? Where did the three RH neutrinos go? Well, we did not count them because we do not actually know if they exist or not. This is a major ambiguity in the SM: do ν_R states exist or not? How many of them are there? And how do they fit into the mechanism of neutrino masses? We know that all SM fermions combine into Dirac particles, but neutrinos are special and do not necessarily have to do so. We will explore this ambiguity in more detail in the next module.

Another way to visualize the field content of the SM is the following:



In this sketch, each page or element corresponds to a specific field or particle in the SM. The three generations are represented as separate layers or sections. The different color-charged quarks are indicated by pages of different colors. And finally, the left-handed and right-handed components versions of each fermion are represented as separate piles, with the right-handed neutrino pile left purposefully empty.

Color charge. Color charge has absolutely nothing to do with what the usual concept of color in everyday life. The name “color” exists to provide an important analogy: just as there are three primary colors that come together to mix into a color-neutral combination, so too can the color charges. In an abstract sense, $RBG = \text{“white”}$ and $\overline{RBG} = \text{“black”}$. This is pretty much the extent of the analogy, so insist on using it at your own peril! Color neutrality is the norm in nature. Quarks and gluons are never found in isolation; they are always confined within larger composite particles with no net color charge. This is because the strong force is so strong that any net color charge is quickly neutralized by the creation of quark-antiquark pairs from the vacuum, so as to screen it. This is significant and goes by the name of *confinement*. It is as though electrons and positrons could spontaneously pop into existence to neutralize any net electric charge created. Thankfully, the electromagnetic force is neither strong enough nor complex enough to allow for this to happen. Confinement also explains why the strong force cannot be long-range: any attempt to separate two color-charged particles will result in the creation of new quark-antiquark pairs to neutralize them.

The color-neutral three-quark bound states alluded to above are referred to as *baryons*. The proton and the neutron are examples of baryons: $|p^+\rangle = |uud\rangle$ and $|n\rangle = |udd\rangle$. Quark-antiquark pairs can also combine into a color-neutral states, which we refer to as *mesons*. The latter are typically lighter and less stable than baryons, but are energetically much easier to produce.

Baryons ($q_a q_b q_c$ or $\bar{q}_a \bar{q}_b \bar{q}_c$):

$$|p^+\rangle = |uud\rangle, \quad |p^-\rangle = |\bar{u}\bar{d}\bar{d}\rangle, \quad |\Lambda^0\rangle = |uds\rangle, \quad |\Lambda_c^+\rangle = |udc\rangle.$$

Mesons ($q_a \bar{q}_a$):

$$|\pi^+\rangle = |u\bar{d}\rangle, \quad |\pi^0\rangle = \frac{|u\bar{u}\rangle - |d\bar{d}\rangle}{\sqrt{2}}, \quad |K^+\rangle = |u\bar{s}\rangle.$$

We will not dedicate much time to the strong force, but you should know that its structure is much richer than the electromagnetic and weak ones. The fact that quarks and gluons are *confined* within baryons and mesons, gives rise to a whole host of new interesting dynamics. The number of composite states you can form by combining quarks together is enormous and, frankly, not fully understood in some cases. While we know the mathematical description of the strong force through quantum chromodynamics (QCD), we do not necessarily know how to perform day-to-day calculations with it because perturbation theory, our main tool in the QFT toolbox, fails. Perturbation theory is the very basis of Feynman diagrams, so even those will be of limited use when it comes to QCD.

Instead, QCD will give way to effective models and phenomenological approaches that capture the essential features of the strong force without requiring a full understanding of the underlying theory, such as Chiral Perturbation Theory. Alternatively, one can brute force their way through the problem. This is the approach of *lattice QCD*, a non-perturbative approach that discretizes spacetime and solves QCD dynamics fully numerically. This approach has been tremendously successful in relatively small systems, but it becomes increasingly difficult to apply in larger, more complex systems like nuclei.

Weak Isospin and Hypercharge. The weak force has two types of charges: weak isospin T_3 , which is the only charge the $W^\pm$ bosons care about (the charged current), and weak hypercharge Y_W , which is the charge that the Z boson couples to (the neutral current).³ While only left-handed particles carry weak isospin, all SM particles carry *weak hypercharge* Y_W , therefore:



All SM fermions interact with the Z boson, but only left-handed fermions participate in weak interactions mediated by the $W^\pm$ bosons.

The weak isospin charge T_3 comes in two types for SM fermions: $T_3 = \pm\frac{1}{2}$ for left-chiral particles and $T_3 = 0$ for right-chiral particles. For example, ν_L^e carries charge $T_3 = +\frac{1}{2}$, e_L carries $T_3 = -\frac{1}{2}$, and e_R is neutral under weak isospin ($T_3 = 0$). This is why we say that only left-chiral particles participate in charged-current weak interactions. This assignment of weak isospin is not arbitrary. As we alluded to earlier, the left-chiral fields all come paired up; the fact they have the same but opposite weak isospin is just a reflection of this pairing. While weak isospin has nothing to do with spin, the mathematical structure of weak isospin is similar to that of spin (hence the name). The two left-chiral fields inside a given pair (like ν_L^e and e_L) are related in the same way that the two states of a spin-1/2 particle ($|\uparrow\rangle$ and $|\downarrow\rangle$) are related. In group theory terms, this just means that the left-chiral fields come in isospin SU(2) doublets, in the same way that spin-1/2 fermion is a doublet under spin SU(2).

Having introduced the full SM field content, I can now give you the full charge assignment of SM fields. This is given in Table 1, including the electric charge, weak isospin, and hypercharge.

Interactions and Feynman Diagrams. Let us look at a few examples of interactions between particles in the SM. To do so, I will introduce the concept of a Feynman diagram. If you have never seen this before, just think of it as a way to represent particle interactions visually. Each diagram corresponds to a particular possibility for a given reaction to happen. The rules of the SM determine what lines and vertices exist, and how they can be connected. Once that is specified, whatever valid diagram you draw will correspond to a real physical process. The amplitude for such a process (and its probability) are then calculable from the diagram using standard rules. The more vertices, the more suppressed the amplitude is supposed to be.

³To be more precise, hypercharge is a combination of weak isospin and electric charge. In reality, the Z boson couples to the combination $\cos\theta_W T_3 - \sin\theta_W Y_W/2$, where θ_W is called the Weak mixing angle.

Particle	Electric Charge Q	Color Charge	Weak Isospin T_3	Hypercharge Y_W
Leptons				
ν_{eL}	0	singlet	$+\frac{1}{2}$	-1
e_L	-1	singlet	$-\frac{1}{2}$	-1
e_R	-1	singlet	0	-2
Quarks				
u_L^i	$+\frac{2}{3}$	triplet ($i = R, G, B$)	$+\frac{1}{2}$	$+\frac{1}{3}$
d_L^i	$-\frac{1}{3}$	triplet ($i = R, G, B$)	$-\frac{1}{2}$	$+\frac{1}{3}$
u_R^i	$+\frac{2}{3}$	triplet ($i = R, G, B$)	0	$+\frac{4}{3}$
d_R^i	$-\frac{1}{3}$	triplet ($i = R, G, B$)	0	$-\frac{2}{3}$
Gauge Bosons				
γ (photon)	0	singlet	0	0
g_{ij} (gluon)	0	octet	0	0
W^+	+1	singlet	+1	0
W^-	-1	singlet	-1	0
Z	0	singlet	0	0
Higgs h	0	singlet	$+\frac{1}{2}$	+1

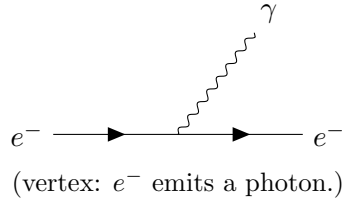
Table 1: Electric charge, color charge, weak isospin, and hypercharge assignments for all SM fields (for a single generation of fermions). For quarks, “triplet” refers to the three color assignments ($i = R, G, B$); for gluons, “octet” refers to the eight gluon states that are linear combinations of $i, j = R, G, B$.



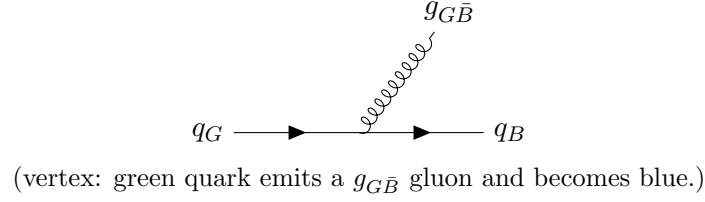
In these Feynman diagrams, we use these conventions (with examples):

- Time flows left to right.
- Solid lines: fermions (e.g., electron e^- : $\rightarrow$)
- Wavy lines: gauge bosons (e.g., photon γ : $\sim\sim\sim$)
- Curly lines: gluons (e.g., g : $\mathcal{C}$)
- Dashed lines: scalars (e.g., Higgs h : $----$)
- Fermion arrows: $\rightarrow$ for particles, $\leftarrow$ for antiparticles.

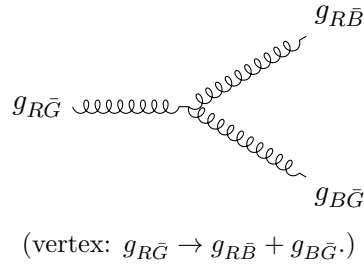
First, the photon interaction with an electrically charged electron:



This should feel familiar. Now, consider a quark interacting with a gluon:

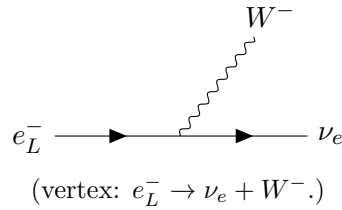


Note that color charge is still conserved. Now, because gluons carry color charge as well, they can also interact with each other. For example,

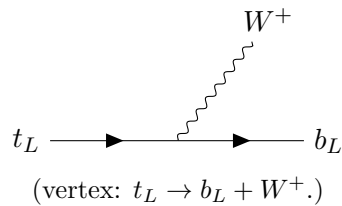


Similar four-gluon vertices exist. This self-interaction makes strong interactions even richer.

Now, weak interactions mediated by the $W^\pm$ bosons are even more interesting. Because the $W^\pm$ bosons are charged, they can change the flavor of the fermions they interact with. For example, consider the process by which an electron converts to a neutrino by emitting a W^- boson:



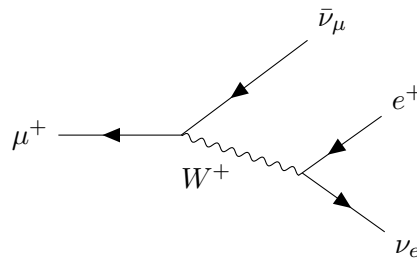
Note that only LH particles are involved. This exact process is not actually kinematically allowed ($m_e < m_{W^-}$), but for a top quark, it absolutely is:



The process above is the dominant decay mode of the top quark. This decay mode is so fast ($\tau_t = 5 \times 10^{-25}$ s) that the top quark decays before it can even be confined inside a color neutral hadron.

This helps explain why the weak force is the “radioactive decay” force: it is the only SM interaction that can change the fermion type (or flavor) and is therefore responsible for mediating the transition from heavy particles into lighter ones. You may argue: “how is this possible? The W mass is much larger than the mass of every other SM fermion!”. And you would be correct! However, the key point is that the W bosons can appear as *virtual* particles in these processes, mediating interactions without ever being produced as real, propagating degrees of freedom.

One illustrative and very important example is given by muon decay: $\mu^+ \rightarrow e^+ + \nu_e + \bar{\nu}_\mu$. The Feynman diagram is given by



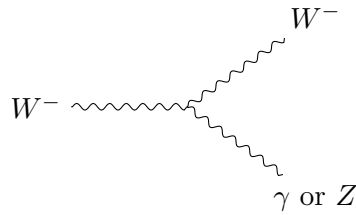
(Muon decay: $\mu^+ \rightarrow e^+ + \nu_e + \bar{\nu}_\mu$.)

Virtual particles. In this process, the W appears as a virtual particle, mediating the interaction without being directly observed. From the point of view of the muon, it only has $E_\mu = m_\mu = 105.7$ MeV in energy to give to its daughter particles. The W , being much heavier, at $M_W = 80$ GeV $\gg m_\mu$, cannot be produced, but it can still mediate the interaction provided it happens in a sufficiently short range. How short? Approximately $r \simeq 1/M_W \simeq 0.002$ fm in size. Within that range, the interaction can effectively “borrow” the mass of the W from the vacuum, allowing the decay to proceed. The cost of having this process take place in such a small region is precisely the reason why we think of the weak force as being weak.



The usual lore behind virtual particles is that this borrowing of energy has to do with the uncertainty principle: $\Delta E \Delta t \gtrsim \hbar/2$. The more energy you want to borrow, the less time (space) you have to do so. In reality, the story is a little more complicated. We will make these ideas more precise soon, but for now, suffice it to say that muons decay due to weak interactions and that this same mechanism is what enables the beta decay of neutrons and nuclei, as well as of many of other unstable particles.

We should note that the W is electrically charged and that it also carries weak (hyper)charge. Therefore, it can interact with the photon and the Z boson,



(vertex: $W^- \rightarrow W^- + \gamma/Z$ or related triple gauge boson couplings.)

This is mostly inconsequential for our discussion here as the weak interactions will already be weak, so adding another photon or Z interaction on top of it will make it even less relevant.



Draw the leading feynman diagram for neutron decay ($n \rightarrow p^+ + e^- + \bar{\nu}_e$). Only one of the constituent quarks in the neutron should participate in this process.

The Higgs boson. Now I have to tell you about the Higgs boson and its role in the SM. It turns out that the Higgs field has a very strange property:



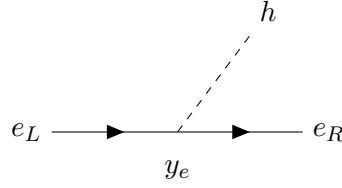
It is energetically favorable for the Higgs field to take a non-zero value everywhere in space than to sit at zero, as most quantum fields do. This phenomenon gives the Higgs a vacuum expectation value (or vev), which we denote as $\langle h \rangle$. After the discovery of the Higgs in 2012, we have measured this value to be about $\langle h \rangle \approx 246$ GeV. This is the only dimensionful quantity that appears in the SM. All fermion masses are derived from it.

In the absence of interactions with other particles, the Higgs vev would be mostly inconsequential, but because all SM fermion fields (with the possible exception of the neutrino fields) interact with the Higgs, they end up developing an inherited tension from the Higgs vev that endows particles with a mass. The stronger the interaction between the fermion fields and the Higgs field is, the larger this tension is, and the larger the resulting particle masses are. In this sense, an electron interacts much less with the Higgs than the top-quark does.

These are some vague statements, but the basic idea is this: if particles are excitations of fields, then particle masses are just the minimal amount of energy that is required to excite them. You can view this as a type of tension in the fabric of the field, which can either be just an intrinsic property of the field, like spin or charge, or be inherited from interactions with other fields, like from the interaction of electron fields with the Higgs. It turns out that in the SM, no fermions carry this intrinsic mass property as they all acquire their mass entirely by interacting with the Higgs (except, maybe, RH neutrinos if they exist).

The way that particles interact with the Higgs is also special. A single chiral fermion, like e_L , cannot interact with the Higgs on its own. Instead, it has to interact with its

opposite-chirality counterpart, e_R , as well as with the Higgs itself through a three-way vertex that we call a *Yukawa interaction*:



(vertex: $e_L \rightarrow e_R + h$ with y_e the Yukawa couplings between the electron and the Higgs.)

What this means is that masses are given to pairs of chiral fermions: the Dirac fermion we discussed previously. That is why all SM fermions are *Dirac fermions*, the Higgs requires two distinct chiral fields to make up a single massive state. Why? Because of weak (hyper)charge conservation. The Higgs carries weak charge and so do the LH and RH fermions. In fact, they all carry different charges. So, in order for this interaction to conserve weak charge, both chiralities must be present to balance things out.

For example, in the SM, the LH and RH electrons carry a weak hypercharge of $Y_W(e_L) = -1$ and $Y_W(e_R) = -2$, while the Higgs carries $Y_W(h) = +1$. So, no three-way combination of these fields can conserve weak hypercharge unless both chiralities are present (you can check that the Feynman diagram above conserves Y_W). While I have discussed weak hypercharge here, you can also do a similar analysis for the weak isospin T_3 , which must also be conserved.

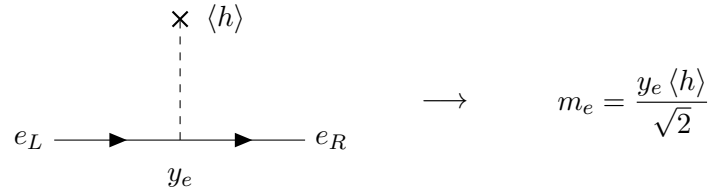


If ν_R does exist, then it must be a completely *sterile fermion*, that is, it would carry no charge and would not participate in any interactions. You can convince yourself of this by looking at the hypercharge conservation in the interaction of the type $\nu_L + h \rightarrow \nu_R$. It must be the case that $Y_W(\nu_R) = 0$ since $Y_W(\nu_L) = -1$ and $Y_W(h) = +1$. Time permitting, we will return to neutrino masses in greater detail later to show that the existence of ν_R is not necessarily such an harmless thing to do.

Symmetry breaking? We have casually alluded to the fact that the SM Higgs “breaks electroweak symmetry”. In perhaps some more familiar words, you can say that the Higgs field acts to hide charge conservation. Not electric charge (that one comes out to always be conserved and very clearly so), but weak hypercharge Y_W and weak isospin T_3 . Here I chose to use the word “hide” because the way that the Higgs breaks the symmetry laws is special. They are said to be broken “spontaneously”. The key here is that the symmetry is not actually broken. It just appears to be broken in the current state the Higgs field finds itself in (which is just its lowest energy configuration, often just referred to as the “ground state” or the vacuum of the theory). So, whatever charge may look to be violated will actually turn out to be conserved when accounting for how it was moved around by interactions with the Higgs field. In other words, weak charge can only be “violated” in ways that the Higgs field allows for.

One naive way to understand this hiding of weak charge is to imagine that the Higgs

field can store and lend charge.⁴ In the context of the interaction with the electron, this looks like the following:



(vertex: $e_L \rightarrow e_R$ via Higgs vev insertion. The electron mass comes out to be the product of the Yukawa coupling and the Higgs vev, up to a factor of $\sqrt{2}$.)

The cross represents the fact that the interaction has happened not with a quantum of the Higgs boson, but rather with the vev of the Higgs field, which has stored an amount of hypercharge to balance everything out. This interaction is rather curious: it transforms a LH electron into a RH electron, effectively changing its chirality.

This diagram with the cross on the Higgs field is what we usually understand as the mass term for the electron. Following our analogy of mass as the tension on the field; you can see the diagram above as imposing such a tension onto the combination of left- and right-chiral fields simultaneously. So, when an electron is created, it is the result of a superposition of left- and right-chiral states, each with their own properties. If only a Dirac mass term is present, this superposition is maximally mixing only e_L and e_R . If there were more interactions, between e_L and μ_R , for example, then more states would be involved and the massive propagating particles would look like mixtures of e_L , e_R , and μ_R . That is not the case for charged lepton, but it is the case for quarks and is the case for neutrinos as well, although the latter have other complications we will get to later.

It is also important to distinguish the diagram with the cross from the one without it. After the Higgs acquired a vev, $h(x) \rightarrow h(x) + \langle h \rangle$, these two diagrams are doing different things. When the Higgs *particle* is involved, the diagram does not represent a mass; it is simply showing the emission of a higgs from an electron line. But if the higgs background $\langle h \rangle$ is involved, then it does correspond to a mass term.



What are the values of the lepton Yukawa couplings y_e, y_μ, y_τ ? How about that of the top quark, y_t ?

⁴This is not literally true, the Higgs vev is just a constant that carries no charge. What is really happening is that the particle states we use to describe the vacuum or ground state of the theory are not the full particle states of the symmetric theory. So, while it may look like weak charge is violated by processes involving the particles we observe, if you were to track the states of the full theory, it would actually come out to be conserved. It is just that those full symmetric states are no longer useful to describe physical aspects of the theory like propagation, scattering, etc. Clearly, there are measurable and physical consequences of the symmetry being spontaneously broken, but this has more to do with the physical basis Higgs vev has forced us to work with than with the underlying symmetries themselves.

3 Spin, helicity, and chirality

Having discussed chirality above, we now have to turn to the closely related concepts of spin and helicity. The spin of a fermion is an intrinsic form of angular momentum that is quantized in units of $\hbar/2 = 1/2$. The total spin operator is defined as

$$\mathbf{S} = \frac{\boldsymbol{\sigma}}{2},$$

where $\boldsymbol{\sigma} = (\sigma_x, \sigma_y, \sigma_z)$ are the Pauli matrices.

$$\sigma_x = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad \sigma_y = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -i \\ i & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad \sigma_z = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}.$$

The total spin operator and its components form a Lie algebra with the commutation relations

$$[\hat{S}_i, \hat{S}_j] = i\epsilon_{ijk}\hat{S}_k.$$

Recall also that for any spin- s particle,

$$\hat{\mathbf{S}}^2 |s, m\rangle = s(s+1) |s, m\rangle, \quad \hat{S}_z |s, m\rangle = m |s, m\rangle, \quad m \in \{-s, -s+1, \dots, s\}.$$

This set of relations are in fact quite general and come from the fact that the spin operators form the Lie algebra of $SU(2)$. This will also be the case for weak isospin, which has nothing to do with spin, but is described by the same mathematical structure.

Two-fermion spin addition

It is also instructive to recall how two spin- $\frac{1}{2}$ particles combine their spins. You may recall from QM classes that

$$\frac{1}{2} \otimes \frac{1}{2} = 1 \oplus 0,$$

which is just a fancy way of saying that out of two half-spin particles, the final net result total spin can be either 1 (triplet) or 0 (singlet). The triplet ($s = 1$) states are:

$$|1, 1\rangle = |\uparrow\uparrow\rangle, \quad |1, 0\rangle = \frac{|\uparrow\downarrow\rangle + |\downarrow\uparrow\rangle}{\sqrt{2}}, \quad |1, -1\rangle = |\downarrow\downarrow\rangle.$$

and the singlet state ($s = 0$):

$$|0, 0\rangle = \frac{|\uparrow\downarrow\rangle - |\downarrow\uparrow\rangle}{\sqrt{2}}.$$

The singlet state, for example, is the state that a pion finds itself in: two spin-1/2 quarks combined into a spin-0 state. The triplet state is essentially the state that a rho meson ρ finds itself in: two spin-1/2 quarks combined into a spin-1 state.

Helicity

Helicity is the projection of the spin onto the direction of a particle's momentum. It is a concept that is related, but not identical, to chirality. For massless particles, they are the same, but for massive particles, they are different. And they are different in a quantifiable way. Helicity is defined as

$$\hat{h} = \frac{\vec{S} \cdot \vec{p}}{|\vec{p}|}, \quad \hat{h} |\vec{p}, h\rangle = h |\vec{p}, h\rangle.$$

Clearly, just by inspecting the definition you should convince yourself that helicity is *not* a Lorentz-invariant quantity when the particle has a mass. This is because you can always just boost the system along the direction of motion and make the momentum be aligned or anti-aligned with the spin.

Similarly to chirality, we also call the helicity eigenstates LH and RH.

$$h = +\frac{1}{2} \text{ (right-handed)}, \quad h = -\frac{1}{2} \text{ (left-handed)}.$$

When trying to be more precise, we can refer to these as *left-helical* $|\psi_{-}\rangle$ and *right-helical* $|\psi_{+}\rangle$ states, as opposed to *left-chiral* $|\psi_L\rangle$ and *right-chiral* $|\psi_R\rangle$ states.



Helicity states are propagating states. Physical particles have well-defined helicity, but not necessarily well-defined chirality.

The relationship between helicity and chirality is fixed by the Dirac equation: the generalization of Schrödinger's equation to relativistic spin-1/2 particles. The two bases are related by a non-trivial transformation:

$$|\psi_L\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2E}} \left(\sqrt{E+p} |\psi_{-}\rangle + \sqrt{E-p} |\psi_{+}\rangle \right), \quad (3.1)$$

$$|\psi_R\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2E}} \left(\sqrt{E-p} |\psi_{-}\rangle - \sqrt{E+p} |\psi_{+}\rangle \right), \quad (3.2)$$

where $E = \sqrt{p^2 + m^2}$ and $N = 2E$. The relation for antiparticles is the same, with the replacement $\psi \rightarrow \bar{\psi}$.

Another suggestive way to rewrite this is

$$|\psi_L\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \left(\sqrt{1+\beta} |\psi_{-}\rangle + \sqrt{1-\beta} |\psi_{+}\rangle \right), \quad (3.3)$$

$$|\psi_R\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \left(\sqrt{1-\beta} |\psi_{-}\rangle - \sqrt{1+\beta} |\psi_{+}\rangle \right), \quad (3.4)$$

where $\beta = \frac{p}{E}$ is the particle's velocity.

Let us consider the different regimes for these states. First, consider the stopped particle scenario, where $\beta \rightarrow 0$. In that case, the two helicities are maximally mixed together in the chiral states. This is not surprising: helicity states are fully scrambled for a particle at rest. Consequently, chirality is also fully scrambled. In the massless limit, $\beta \rightarrow 1$, the two helicities decouple completely and you will find that left-chiral states are

equivalent to left-helical states, and that right-chiral states are equivalent to right-helical states.

Now, consider the ultra-relativistic regime, where $\beta \rightarrow 1 - \frac{m^2}{2E^2}$. In that case, we get

$$|\psi_L\rangle \simeq |\psi_- \rangle + \frac{m}{2p} |\psi_+ \rangle, \quad (3.5)$$

$$|\psi_R\rangle \simeq \frac{m}{2p} |\psi_- \rangle - |\psi_+ \rangle, \quad (3.6)$$

Alternatively, we may choose to invert these relations,

$$|\psi_- \rangle \simeq |\psi_L\rangle + \frac{m}{2p} |\psi_R\rangle, \quad (3.7)$$

$$|\psi_+ \rangle \simeq \frac{m}{2p} |\psi_L\rangle - |\psi_R\rangle. \quad (3.8)$$

Discrete Symmetries. There are three important discrete symmetries in QFT that are going to help us understand the role of chirality and anti-particles in our discussion. These are:

	Parity ($\hat{P}$)	Time Reversal ($\hat{T}$)	Charge Conjugation ($\hat{C}$)
Space	$\vec{x} \rightarrow -\vec{x}$	$\vec{x} \rightarrow \vec{x}$	$\vec{x} \rightarrow \vec{x}$
Time	$t \rightarrow t$	$t \rightarrow -t$	$t \rightarrow t$
Momentum	$\vec{p} \rightarrow -\vec{p}$	$\vec{p} \rightarrow -\vec{p}$	$\vec{p} \rightarrow \vec{p}$
Charge	$Q \rightarrow Q$	$Q \rightarrow Q$	$Q \rightarrow -Q$
States	$ \psi_{L,R}\rangle \rightarrow \psi_{L,R}\rangle$	$ \psi_{L,R}\rangle \rightarrow \psi_{L,R}\rangle$	$ \psi_{L,R}\rangle \rightarrow \bar{\psi}_{R,L}\rangle$
Helicity	$h \rightarrow -h$	$h \rightarrow -h$	$h \rightarrow h$

Note that the action of $\hat{C}$ on states is to flip their chirality and quantum numbers, while the action of $\hat{P}$ and $\hat{T}$ is to flip their helicity. In this sense, helicity is related to the particle's relationship to spacetime, while chirality is related to the particle's internal properties.

Now, the combination $\widehat{CPT}$ is very important. It turns out that Lorentz invariance typically implies CPT invariance. Its full effect on a particle state is:

$$\widehat{CPT} |\psi_L, \vec{p}\rangle = |\bar{\psi}_R, \vec{p}\rangle, \quad \widehat{CPT} |\psi_R, \vec{p}\rangle = |\bar{\psi}_L, \vec{p}\rangle. \quad (3.9)$$



What this means is that CPT invariance will relate left-handed particles to right-handed antiparticles. In fact, these two particles are two sides of the same coin. They come from the same field: a chiral field excites particles as well as its antiparticles with opposite chirality. For instance, the chiral field $e_L(x)$ creates $|e_L\rangle$ and $|\bar{e}_R\rangle$ states. In a consistent theory, you cannot have one without the other.



A Lorentz boost in the x direction is described by the matrix

$$\Lambda(\eta) = \begin{pmatrix} \cosh(\eta) & -\sinh(\eta) & 0 & 0 \\ -\sinh(\eta) & \cosh(\eta) & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad (3.10)$$

where η is the rapidity parameter related to the boost velocity by $\beta = \tanh(\eta)$. Usually we think of β and η as real parameters, but show that applying a boost with $\eta = i\pi$ and a subsequent rotation of π around the x axis, this matrix corresponds to a $\widehat{PT}$ transformation as far as the coordinates are concerned. Knowing that $\hat{C}$ acts to transform a particle to an antiparticle and that, a particle traveling backwards in time is equivalent to an antiparticle traveling forwards in time (this is the Feynman-Stueckelberg interpretation of antiparticles), conclude that the combination $\widehat{CPT}$ is analogous to this “complexified” Lorentz-invariance.

Majorana vs Dirac fermions. We saw that Dirac fermions are superpositions of two chiral states, $|\psi_L\rangle$ and $|\psi_R\rangle$. What this implies is that they require the existence of two chiral fields: one excites $|\psi_L\rangle$ and the other excites $|\psi_R\rangle$. Diagrammatically, you can represent a Dirac mass as follows:

$$\psi_L \longrightarrow \text{---} \times \text{---} \longrightarrow \psi_R$$

m_ψ

When the mass comes from the Higgs vev (as in the SM), then the mass insertion (the cross) is replaced by an interaction with the Higgs background with which weak charge can be “exchanged”. In Eq. (3.5), we saw how masses scramble chiralities in the propagating states of definite helicity, requiring at least two chiral particles involved. However, in this section, I will show that a Dirac mass term is not the only way to combine two chiralities together.

Majorana fermions are particles whose mass arises from a coupling between the fermion $|\psi_L\rangle$ and its own antiparticle $|\bar{\psi}_R\rangle$. This seems reasonable: two different chiralities scramble together due to the mass term. Diagrammatically, you can represent a Majorana mass as follows:

$$\psi_L \longrightarrow \text{---} \times \text{---} \longleftarrow \bar{\psi}_R$$

μ_ψ

Typically, Majorana masses are denoted by the Greek letter μ to distinguish them from Dirac masses, which are usually denoted by m or m_D . The clashing arrows along the fermion line have an important consequence: electric charge is not conserved in this diagram. In fact, any quantum number associated with the particle is violated by a full two units in the presence of a Majorana mass. In the example above, electric charge was

violated by a full $\Delta Q = 2$ units. This explains why, with the exception of neutrinos, all SM fermions must be Dirac particles: electric charge is conserved.

As far as we know, neutrinos are the only elementary particles that can acquire a Majorana mass.⁵ For now, let us ignore the potential existence of ν_R . A SM neutrino state $|\nu_L\rangle$ combining with its own antiparticle $|\bar{\nu}_R\rangle$ would give us the two helicity states of a Majorana neutrino:

$$|\nu_-\rangle \simeq |\nu_L\rangle + \frac{m_\nu}{2p} |\bar{\nu}_R\rangle, \quad |\nu_+\rangle \simeq -|\bar{\nu}_R\rangle + \frac{m_\nu}{2p} |\nu_L\rangle. \quad (3.11)$$

Note it mixes two states with opposite quantum numbers. This brings up an important question: where should we put the $-$ sign? On ν_- ? Or ν_+ ? This ambiguity is a reflection of the fact that the helicity states both particles and antiparticles at the same time; the distinction is formally speaking impossible to make.

i

This is why you will often hear that

Majorana particles are their own antiparticles.

This sentence is unfortunately quite confusing because it omits the fact that there are still two different particles produced from the Majorana field, namely the two different helicity eigenstates. From the relation in Eq. (3.11), you can see that ultra-relativistic ν_- states will interact mostly as a *neutrino*, while ν_+ will interact mostly as an *antineutrino*. This is why we can still talk about neutrinos and antineutrinos in the context of Majorana masses: by convention, we call the *left-helical* states by neutrinos and the *right-helical* by antineutrinos. In the non-relativistic case, this distinction is far less useful, and both helicity states interact equally as neutrinos and antineutrinos.

i

How many different states can a Dirac fermion find itself in? How many degrees of freedom does it have? Well, firstly, the two chiral fields, $|e_L\rangle$ and $|e_R\rangle$, will produce two independent states, so at least 2. However, we saw that CPT invariance implied that each chiral field can also produce antiparticles of opposite chirality, so in total we have $n_{\text{dof}} = 4$ different states:

$$\psi(x)_{\text{Dirac}} = \psi_L(x) + \psi_R(x) \text{ creates } |\psi_L\rangle, |\bar{\psi}_R\rangle, |\psi_R\rangle, \text{ and } |\bar{\psi}_L\rangle. \quad (3.12)$$

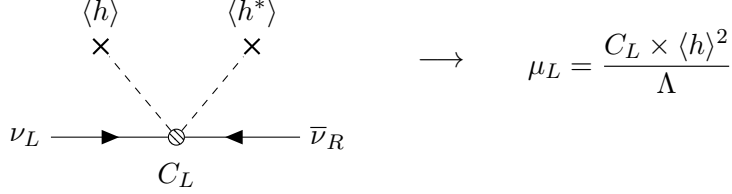
This should be contrasted with a Majorana or Weyl fermion. There, only one chirality is present, leading to half as many degrees of freedom, $n_{\text{dof}} = 2$:

$$\psi_L(x) \text{ creates } |\psi_L\rangle \text{ and } |\bar{\psi}_R\rangle, \quad (3.13)$$

and similarly for ψ_R . But crucially, ψ_R and ψ_L are independent fields and need not both exist. A Weyl fermion has no Majorana mass, but has the same number of degrees of freedom as a Majorana fermion.

⁵If dark matter is a fermionic particle, it may also be a Majorana particle since dark matter should be electrically neutral to have escaped detection so far.

Neutrino majorana masses in the SM. At this point something should still be bothering you: how come neutrinos are allowed to have a Majorana mass if they carry weak charge? Should that also not be conserved? The answer is that it should be conserved and the Higgs background shows us how. This diagram shows how a SM neutrino Majorana mass term, μ_L , would look like:

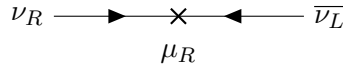


(Majorana mass: $\nu_L \rightarrow \bar{\nu}_R$ via double Higgs vev insertion, effective vertex shown as blob.)

where C_L is a dimensionless coupling constant and Λ is some new energy scale that we will discuss shortly. Observe how we needed not one, but two(!) Higgs vev insertions to achieve this mass term. A quick inspection of the balance of Hypercharges shows why: $Y_W(\bar{\nu}_R) = -Y_W(\nu_L) = +1$ and $Y_W(h) = +1$. Note that I used the vev of the complex-conjugate of the Higgs field, h^* , which has $Y_W(h^*) = -Y_W(h)$. Its vev is the same, but I wanted to draw attention to the fact that in the way the diagram is drawn, you get an anti-Higgs insertion in the final state.

The diagram above is what we call the Weinberg mechanism for neutrino masses. It turns out that this mechanism is just an effective description of neutrino masses, and not really an explanation per se. Time permitting, we will talk about why that is the case, but for now, suffice it to say that it points to the existence of a new particle or some physics beyond the SM at an unknown scale Λ . You can convince yourself of that by noting that if diagrams with a single vev insertion $\langle h \rangle$ generate the fermion mass, then diagrams with two insertions generate a “mass squared”, so to restore the dimensions to one power of mass, you need to divide by some new scale Λ . Quite literally, up to couplings and factors of 2, we have $m_\nu \sim \langle h \rangle^2 / \Lambda$. What the existence of Λ is telling you is that new particles, such as RH neutrinos or new Higgs bosons, should exist at this new energy scale and complete the theory.

If the SM is extended to include RH neutrinos ν_R , then they can also have a Majorana mass term with no Higgs vev insertions at all; they are sterile fermions and do not carry any SM charge.



To summarize: we have seen two ways to extend the SM to endow neutrinos with a mass. (1) Follow the Higgs mechanism, introducing a new field $\nu_R(x)$ to make neutrinos Dirac particles. (2) Introduce a Majorana mass term for the left-handed neutrinos ν_L with a double Higgs vev insertion. The latter comes at the cost of deferring the origin of this diagram to new particles that live at some new energy scale Λ . Given that there is a whole new particle in approach (1) and that in (2) there is a new kind of mass unlike anything

we ever seen in fundamental particles, you should be surprised to hear that we are very bad at telling these two scenarios apart experimentally.

The reason is due to a combination of two factors: 1) the weak force only couples to LH neutrinos (RH antineutrinos), 2) neutrinos are almost always ultra-relativistic (with one exception you will think about for your first assignment), meaning that their helicity is almost always aligned with their chirality.

Lepton number. Lepton number L is an important quantum number associated with neutrinos. As the name suggests,

$$L(\nu_L) = +1, \quad L(\bar{\nu}_R) = -1. \quad (3.14)$$

In the same way, $L(e^-) = +1$ and $L(e^+) = -1$. All other SM particles that are not leptons do not carry lepton number, $L(\text{quarks}) = L(\text{mediators}) = L(\text{higgs}) = 0$.



The SM happens to conserve lepton number in all of its interactions and masses. There simply is no parameter in the SM that could violate lepton number without violating other more fundamental symmetries, like electric charge conservation, so L was automatically conserved. This is an accidental symmetry: it was never imposed, but it just so happens to be true. If neutrinos are Majorana, however, it is then violated by $\Delta L = 2$ units.

Therefore, if our solution to the neutrino mass puzzle contains a Majorana mass for the left-handed neutrinos ν_L , this accidental symmetry will be no longer valid: we would expect to see processes that violate lepton number conservation.



Can you think of an example of a processes that violates lepton number conservation without violating electric charge, for example?

Note that we said that RH neutrinos ν_R can admit a Majorana mass with no major consequences. They are sterile fermions, so not weak charge is violated by it. However, they are still leptons,

$$L(\nu_R) = +1, \quad L(\bar{\nu}_L) = -1, \quad (3.15)$$

so a Majorana mass for ν_R would still violate lepton number conservation. The consequences of it would be much harder to see experimentally because ν_R do not interact (directly) with anything in the SM, but as we will see, it can still have important consequences as ν_R can transfer some of this lepton number violation to the LH neutrino states, ν_L , through the Higgs interaction.



In particle physics we operate under the motto:

All that is not forbidden is mandatory.

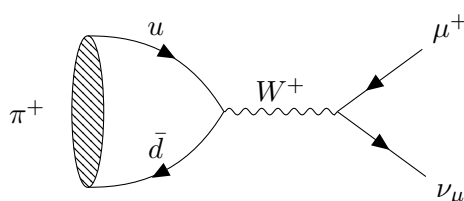
So if we do not enforce that lepton number conservation is a symmetry law, then by simply allowing ν_R to exist, we can expect it to have a Majorana mass. This mass can be anything, as, a priori, it has nothing to do with the Higgs boson or its vev.

Therefore, trying to include neutrino masses in the SM by adding ν_R neutrinos to the theory is not so innocuous: once introduced, you must make a choice. Does it have a Majorana mass or not? If not, then that's significant: we just learned about another symmetry law. If it does, then the two chiral neutrino states ν_L and ν_R want to pair up into a Dirac fermion but the Majorana mass of ν_R prevents this from happening.

Note that ν_L may also carry a Majorana mass *à la* the Weinberg interaction discussed above. But in that case, it is less clear whether such a mass must exist or not. This is because it relied on the existence of this new physics scale Λ , which we know absolutely nothing about. If there are no new particles at this scale, such a Weinberg mechanism is never triggered and we were never justified in writing it down. If this was the only way to give neutrino masses, then we could be more confident that such a mass scale exists, but we already know that Dirac neutrino masses can solve the neutrino mass puzzle without invoking any Majorana mass terms.

We will return to this interplay between Dirac and Majorana masses. But first, we must convince ourselves that the data is really telling us that neutrinos have mass, so we will wait until we have studied neutrino oscillations in detail.

Neutrino to anti-neutrino conversion. How hard is it exactly to determine if a neutrino state is Dirac or Majorana? One way to distinguish these two scenarios is to ask if neutrinos can violate lepton number in their interactions. If they can, then that is a pretty strong indication that they are Majorana particles. Start with a neutrino source, say, pion decay $\pi^+ \rightarrow \mu^+ + \nu_\mu$:



(Pion decay diagram: The pion, represented by the blob to emphasize its compositeness, can decay once its constituent quarks come together to annihilate into a virtual W^+ boson, which in turn decays into a muon and a muon neutrino.)

Because this is a weak interaction process, this decay proceeds through the interactions of a right-handed anti-muon $|\mu_R^+\rangle$ and a left-handed muon neutrino $|\nu_L\rangle$.⁶ Now, we know that the propagating degrees of freedom are helicity states, and not chirality states. So,

⁶For now, we will drop the flavor subscript ν_μ and simply write ν for simplicity.

when the pion decays, we must project the interaction states onto the propagating degrees of freedom to find the actual helicity states produced. Schematically, the probabilities to decay into the two states are

$$P(\pi^+ \rightarrow \mu^+ \nu_-) \propto |\langle \nu_- | \nu_L \rangle|^2 \simeq 1 - \frac{m^2}{4E^2}, \quad (3.16)$$

$$P(\pi^+ \rightarrow \mu^+ \nu_+) \propto |\langle \nu_+ | \nu_L \rangle|^2 = \frac{m^2}{4E^2}. \quad (3.17)$$

What this shows is that the pion actually decays mostly to $|\nu_- \rangle$ states and a tiny amount of $|\nu_+ \rangle$ states because of Eq. (3.5). To be clear: the pion decays to two separate populations. The pion does *not* decay to the superposition $|\nu_L \rangle$, but rather, each time the pion decays, it produces either $|\nu_- \rangle$ or $|\nu_+ \rangle$ with the aforementioned proportions. This is because the amplitude for producing these two states do not interfere with each other.

Now, if neutrinos are Majorana, this small amount of $|\nu_+ \rangle$ is quite significant. It means, by virtue of Eq. (3.11), that a small fraction of neutrinos produced in pion decay actually prefers to interact as an antineutrino, $|\bar{\nu}_R \rangle$. To see this, consider the left-helical states $|\nu_- \rangle$. These are almost identical to left-chiral neutrinos: $|\nu_L \rangle$, which through the weak force, scatter on nucleons as follows:

$$\nu_L + n \rightarrow \mu^- + p^+, \quad P(\nu_- + n \rightarrow \mu^- + p^+) = |\langle \nu_- | \nu_L \rangle|^2 \simeq 1 - \frac{m^2}{4E^2}. \quad (3.18)$$

Now, the right-helical state $|\nu_+ \rangle$ for Majorana neutrinos is almost identical to $|\bar{\nu}_R \rangle$, which also interacts with the weak force, but it does so as an antiparticle. The scattering on nucleons is then strikingly different:

$$\bar{\nu}_R + p^+ \rightarrow \mu^+ + n, \quad P(\bar{\nu}_+ + p^+ \rightarrow \mu^+ + n) = |\langle \nu_+ | \bar{\nu}_R \rangle|^2 \simeq 1 - \frac{m^2}{4E^2}. \quad (3.19)$$

This explains why we typically refer to ν_+ as an antineutrino.

Now, using only the helicity eigenstates, if you keep track of lepton number in these reactions, you will find that there are four possible chains of events, shown in Fig. 1. The first conserves L overall,

$$\pi^+ \rightarrow \mu^+ + \nu_- \quad \text{followed by} \quad \nu_- + n \rightarrow \mu^- + p^+ \quad (\Delta L = 0). \quad (3.20)$$

Overall, this process starts with a pion, produces a μ^+ and a ν_- . The latter has no well-defined lepton number (it is a combination of a neutrino and an antineutrino), so to determine the overall lepton number in the full process, we will ask what charged lepton gets produced once it scatters, which, in this case, is a μ^- . So, starting with the pion, which had no lepton number, we ended up with a μ^+ and a μ^- , which have opposite lepton numbers and therefore, no net gain or loss of L took place. Note that the neutron is there just to serve as a target for the neutrino and also does not change the overall lepton number.

Now, let us consider a chain of events that violates L (by 2 units, as we expect from an effect that comes from the Majorana mass term!),

$$\pi^+ \rightarrow \mu^+ + \nu_+ \quad \text{followed by} \quad \nu_+ + p^+ \rightarrow \mu^+ + n \quad (\Delta L = 2, \text{ suppressed by } m^2/4E^2). \quad (3.21)$$

Overall, this second chain sees the production of two μ^+ particles: one from pion decay, and the other from the neutrino scattering on a nucleon. The suppression factor $m^2/4E^2$ comes from the small overlap of ν_L , the interaction basis neutrino, with ν_+ , namely $\langle \nu_L | \nu_+ \rangle \simeq \mathcal{O}(m^2/E^2)$. But once we pay this penalty for the production of neutrinos of the “wrong helicity” out of pion decay is suppressed, the scattering can proceed as shown with large probability because the overlap $\langle \bar{\nu}_R | \nu_+ \rangle \simeq 1$.

The two remaining possibilities to obtain the same processes above are as follows: For the L violating one, you could have also asked that ν_- interact as a right-chiral *antineutrino* $|\bar{\nu}_R\rangle$. This is again suppressed by an overall factor of $m^2/4E^2$, which comes from the scattering process, rather than from the decay. And the last possibility, and least important one, is to require that the pion decay to ν_+ and but force it to interact as a left-chiral *neutrino* $|\nu_L\rangle$. In this case, the overall suppression is of order $m^4/16E^4$, so completely negligible.

So, how likely are we to observe such lepton number violating processes? The suppression factor in any realistic experiment is of order

$$\frac{m^2}{4E^2} \simeq 2.5 \times 10^{-21} \left(\frac{m_\nu}{0.1 \text{ eV}} \right)^2 \left(\frac{1 \text{ GeV}}{E_\nu} \right)^2. \quad (3.22)$$

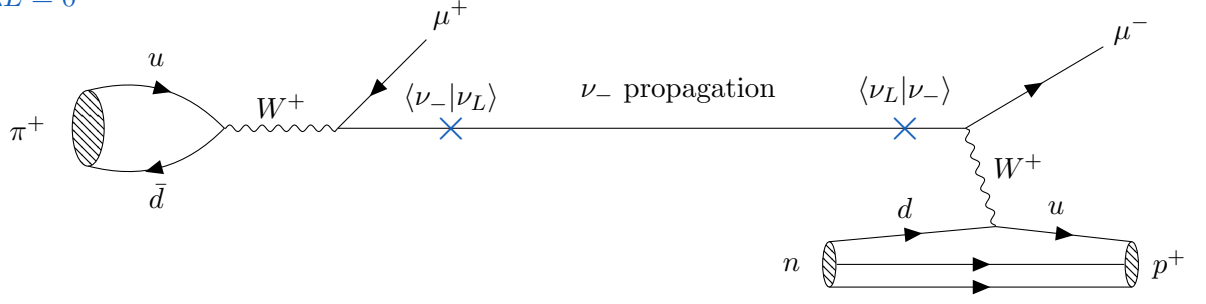
This is telling you that to see a single μ^+ in a beam of neutrinos from π^+ decay, you would need to detect about 10^{21} neutrinos in total, which is completely unrealistic. Typically, neutrino experiments detect about 10^6 neutrinos in total.



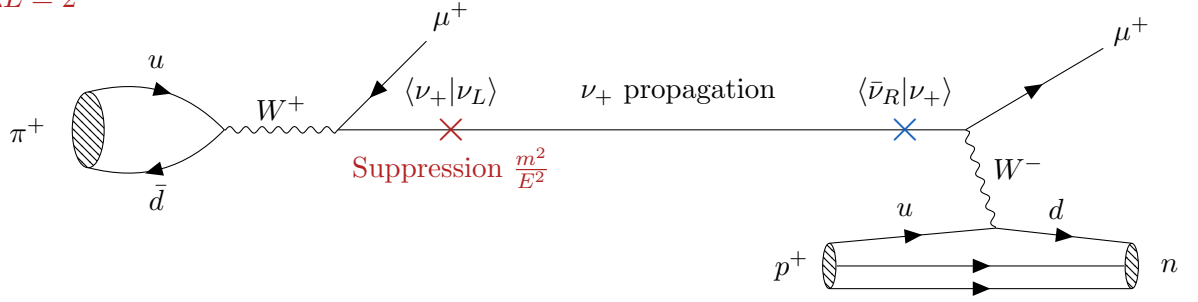
What if we consider neutrinos from neutron beta decay instead? How many ν_e interactions would you need to detect to see a single lepton number violating event in that case?

The story above only holds for Majorana neutrinos. If they are Dirac, the $m^2/4E^2$ suppressed piece of these processes is far less significant. For ultra-relativistic Dirac neutrinos, the “wrong-helicity” $|\nu_+\rangle$ component produced in pion decays is approximately $|\nu_R\rangle$. Therefore, it does not interact through the weak force (again, up to $\mathcal{O}(m^2/4E^2)$ corrections that contain $|\nu_L\rangle$ — which is still a *neutrino*). This means that the chains of events above that lead to lepton number violation are impossible for Dirac neutrinos: this had to be the case since Dirac neutrino masses conserve lepton number. The only effect of the suppressed amplitudes are to reduce the overall interaction rate of neutrinos by a tiny amount, which is even more challenging to measure experimentally.

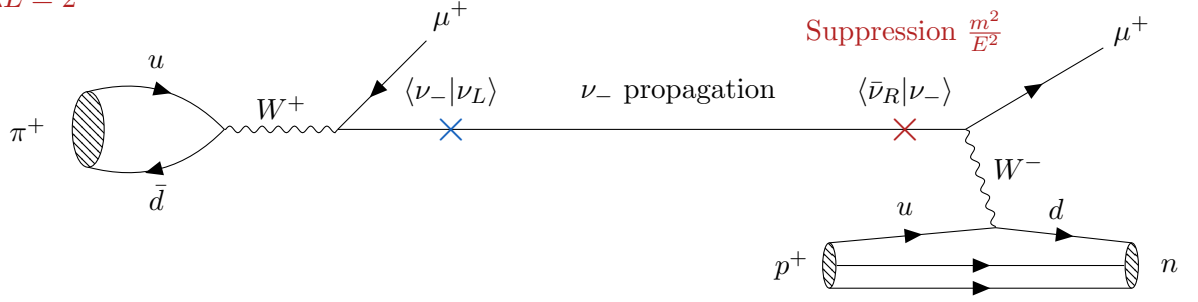
$\Delta L = 0$



$\Delta L = 2$



$\Delta L = 2$



$\Delta L = 0$

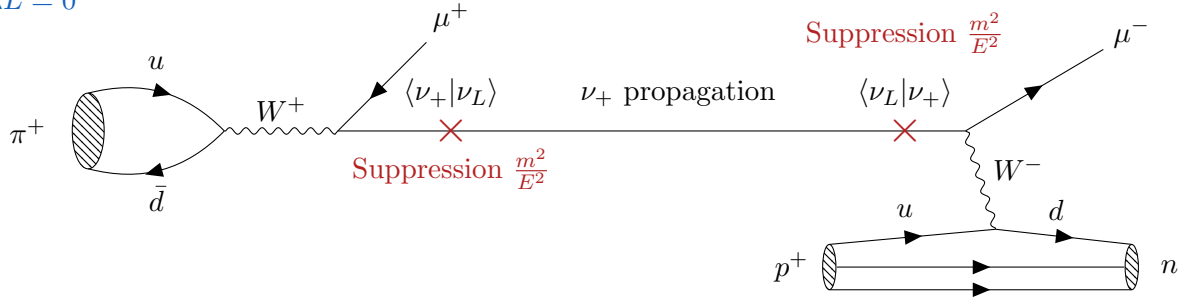


Figure 1: Pion decay to neutrinos followed by neutrino scattering on a nucleon target for different possibilities under a Majorana neutrino scenario. Spectator quarks are shown to emphasize that the nucleon is a bound state.



Assignment 1. The cosmic neutrino background (CνB) was formed when neutrinos decoupled from the primordial plasma at a temperature of about $T_{\text{early}} \simeq 1$ MeV. This means that at that temperature, neutrinos were finally able to propagate freely and, on average, were no longer scattering on other background particles in reactions such as $\nu_e + n \leftrightarrow e^- + p^+$. Since then, these neutrinos continued to freely propagate everywhere in the universe until reaching us today, redshifting down in energy. Today, they form a collisionless gas of temperature $T_{\text{now}} = T_{\text{early}}/(1 + z_{\text{CνB}}) \simeq 1.95$ K, where $z_{\text{CνB}} \simeq 10^9$ is called the *redshift*. (Contrast this with the cosmic microwave background (CMB), which decoupled at a much later time, around $T_{\text{CMB-early}} \simeq 0.25$ eV and $z_{\text{CMB}} \simeq 1100$.)

Note that all weakly-interacting neutrinos, namely $|\nu_L^\alpha\rangle$ and $|\bar{\nu}_R^\alpha\rangle$ with $\alpha \in \{e, \mu, \tau\}$, were produced with the same proportions in the early universe and that the total number of neutrinos (of all types) in our ambient today is about $n \sim 330 (\nu + \bar{\nu})/\text{cm}^3$.

1. Assuming that all neutrinos have a mass of about $m_\nu \simeq 0.1$ eV and using the CνB temperature above, estimate i) the typical kinetic energy $E_{\text{kin}} = E - m \simeq T_{\text{now}}$ of neutrinos in the CνB today in eV, and ii) the momentum p of a single neutrino state today in eV. What is its typical velocity as a fraction of the speed of light?
2. What is the flux of these neutrinos in neutrinos/cm²/s? Compare this with the flux of neutrinos emitted by the Sun, $\Phi(\text{solar}) = 7 \times 10^{10} \nu_e/\text{cm}^2/\text{s}$, which have much higher energies, $E_\nu \simeq 1$ MeV.
3. **Picking a single neutrino flavor α , write the initial chiral neutrino eigenstates in terms of helicity states. What does this simplify to for today's CνB energies? Assuming neutrinos are Dirac particles, in what proportion are the different degrees of freedom (different types of propagating particles) to be found in the CνB today if neutrinos are Dirac? How about if they are Majorana?**
4. PTOLEMY is a project that will attempt to detect the cosmic neutrino background via the *neutrino capture* reaction on tritium, namely $\nu_e + {}^3\text{H} \rightarrow {}^3\text{He} + e^-$. Draw a Feynman diagram for this process (include the spectator particles in your diagram if drawing the nucleon or quark-level diagrams). What neutrino state is allowed to be captured? Recall that neutrinos may come in many types: $|\nu_L^\alpha\rangle$, $|\nu_R^\alpha\rangle$, $|\bar{\nu}_L^\alpha\rangle$, $|\bar{\nu}_R^\alpha\rangle$, with $\alpha \in \{e, \mu, \tau\}$.
5. If PTOLEMY employed 100 grams of tritium, how many neutrinos would you expect to interact in that 100 g sample over the course of a year? Show your workings for this question.

(Hint: Take the neutrino capture cross section to be

$$\sigma_{\nu_e\text{-capture}} \sim \frac{G_F^2 m_\nu m_p}{2\pi}, \quad (4.8)$$

with $G_F = 1.166 \times 10^{-5} \text{ GeV}^{-2}$ and m_p the proton mass.)

6. How many tritium beta decay events occur in the same time period?
 7. What is the largest energy the electron may carry in the beta decay process, i.e., what is the Q-value of this reaction? How about in the neutrino capture process? Is it possible to see this signal on top of the beta-decay backgrounds? (Hint: the nuclear masses of tritium and He3 are: $m(^3\text{He}) \simeq 2808.391 \text{ MeV}$ and $m(^3\text{H}) \simeq 2808.921 \text{ MeV}$).
 8. **Does the signal rate (ν_e) capture change if neutrinos are Dirac or Majorana particles?**
-